Do Better Generators Make Worse Teachers? Disentangling Diversity, Label Alignment and Fidelity in Synthetic Training Data

Anonymous CVPR submission

Abstract

Newer text-to-image generators produce images that look better yet train worse classifiers, a regression recently attributed to a collapse toward narrow, aesthetic-centric distributions. That diagnosis is correlational, rests on generic ImageNet classes, and comes without a remedy. We ask which property of a synthetic training set actually drives real-test accuracy, and we answer by intervention rather than correlation. Holding the generator, prompt and pool of images fixed, we construct training sets that differ in only one measured property: intrinsic diversity, coverage of the real distribution, label alignment, or per-sample fidelity. We use a 2×2 factorial and a balanced random-subset design with a Shapley decomposition. Under a hard compute limit, this version is a pilot: three open generators (SD1.5, SD-Turbo, SDXL) on 20 classes of the fine-grained CUB-200-2011 dataset, evaluated with a frozen-backbone linear probe. In this setting the regression does not replicate: SDXL is the best teacher (96.2% vs. 91.5% and 90.9% under class-name prompts; real data 98.6%). Within a fixed pool, label alignment moves accuracy (+12.2, +3.9 and +1.3 points for SD1.5, SD-Turbo and SDXL) while diversity has no measurable effect, but the four properties are too collinear for a reliable Shapley attribution (within-pool R^2=3.6%). DAS, a training-free recipe (oversample, filter by label alignment, then select for coverage), closes 25–44% of the gap between naive synthetic and matched real data, but a plain alignment filter does about as well. We report where it does not help.

1. Introduction

Text-to-image (T2I) models are an appealing source of training data. They are cheap to query, free of collection cost, and can in principle be asked for any class in any condition [2, 13, 29, 30]. It is natural to expect that as generators improve, the data they produce should improve with them.

Adamkiewicz et al. [1] showed that the opposite happens. Across thirteen open generators released between 2022 and 2025, classifiers trained only on synthetic ImageNet images and tested on real ones get steadily worse with newer models, even as prompt following and visual quality improve. Their analysis links the regression to degraded texture and high-frequency statistics and to a collapse of the synthetic distribution: high density, low coverage.

This is an important observation, but it leaves the mechanism open in three ways that matter for anyone who wants to use synthetic data. First, the evidence is correlational. Generators differ in architecture, autoencoder, training data, default resolution and guidance behaviour all at once. A cross-generator association between coverage and accuracy cannot separate the effect of coverage from everything else that changed. Second, the evidence concerns 200 generic ImageNet classes that generators have seen countless times. In fine-grained domains such as bird species or aircraft variants, a generator may render a beautiful, diverse image of the wrong species. In that case label alignment, not diversity, could be the binding constraint. Third, no remedy is offered short of obtaining detailed captions of real images, which presupposes the real data that synthetic data was meant to replace.

We address these gaps with a simple change of method: we intervene on the training set instead of comparing generators. For a fixed generator and prompt regime we draw a large pool of images and then construct many training sets of identical size from that pool. These sets differ systematically in one measured property while the others are held fixed or balanced. Because generator, prompt, autoencoder and resolution are now constant, differences in real-test accuracy can be attributed to the manipulated property of the set rather than to the model that produced it. We use two designs. One is a 2×2 factorial over diversity and alignment. The other is a balanced random-subset design whose variation supports a Shapley decomposition

of explained variance [11, 21].

Taking this route forces several distinctions that correlational studies tend to blur, and we make them explicit. Intrinsic diversity (how spread out a set is, measured by the Vendi score [8]) is not the same as coverage (how much of the real distribution the set reaches [18, 24]). A generator can be highly diverse along axes that do not matter, such as artistic style. Label alignment (does the image show the prompted class?) is not prompt following in the GenEval sense, and the predecessor found the latter inversely related to utility [1]. Fidelity measured per sample (precision, density) is not FID, which conflates fidelity and diversity in a single distance [14, 19].

The decomposition suggests a remedy that needs no generator training. DAS (Diversity-matched, Alignment-filtered Sampling) oversamples each class, discards images that a few-shot real classifier or a text-only scorer does not recognise as the prompted class, and then selects for coverage with greedy k-center [10, 32]. We compare it with natural alternatives, including simply training on the whole oversampled pool, so that the benefit of selection is not confused with the benefit of more images.

Scope of this version. The full design (four generators, two fine-grained datasets, three generation seeds, about 600 A100 GPU-hours) was out of reach. We ran it at pilot scale on free T4 GPUs (20 CUB classes, SD1.5, SD-Turbo, SDXL, two prompts, one generation seed). Every claim is scoped to that setting; Sec. 7 lists what was and was not run.

Contributions.

1. An interventional decomposition of the synthetic-to-real gap into diversity, coverage, label alignment and fidelity, with generator and prompt held fixed, run here at pilot scale. It includes an autoencoder-reconstruction control that isolates latent-space artifacts from distributional effects.
2. Evidence from a fine-grained domain (20 CUB-200-2011 classes) across three generators and two prompt regimes. We show that the relative importance of each factor shifts with generator quality: label alignment is large for the weakest generator and small for the strongest, while diversity does not matter, together with a per-class analysis relating the gap to how well the generator knows each class.
3. DAS, a training-free selection recipe. We report the fraction of the real-data gap it closes, a compute-matched comparison against using all generated images, and the settings where it fails.
4. Methodological checks that we found necessary: two independent alignment scorers, and separation of the embedding used for selection from the one used for measurement, so that DAS cannot win by optimising the metric it is scored on. (A from-scratch control for the linear-probe protocol is implemented but was not run in this version.)

We state our hypotheses in advance (Sec. 3.4) and report negative outcomes as findings.

2. Related work

Training on generated images. Early work established that diffusion-generated images can train or pretrain useful classifiers. These include ImageNet clones from Stable Diffusion [30], synthetic data for zero- and few-shot recognition [13], fine-tuned Imagen data that improves ImageNet accuracy [2], and synthetic contrastive pretraining [38, 39]. Fan et al. [7] characterised scaling laws for synthetic images and their limits. Geng et al. [9] showed that retrieving real images from a generator's own training set beats generating from it. Singh et al. [34] benchmarked the robustness of synthetic-trained models. Most of this work uses Stable Diffusion 1.x/2.x [29]. Adamkiewicz et al. [1] extended the comparison to thirteen generators and found a regression with newer models, which is the starting point of this paper. Their analysis is correlational across generators on generic classes; ours intervenes within generators on fine-grained classes and proposes a remedy.

Diversity, prompts and augmentation. Several works observe that synthetic data lacks diversity and attack it at the prompt: by diversifying prompts [33], using captions as prompts [20], or editing real images toward new domains [5, 40]. For fine-grained classes, SaSPA [23] conditions generation on structure to preserve subject identity. DataDream [16] fine-tunes the generator on a few real shots. Real-Fake [43] frames synthesis as distribution matching. These methods change the generator or its conditioning. DAS is complementary: it leaves the generator untouched and changes only which samples are kept, so it can be stacked on top of any of them.

Data selection and label noise. Selecting a coreset by greedy k-center [10, 32] and pruning data by difficulty [35] are established for real data. Filtering by a classifier's agreement with the given label is a standard tool against label noise [25]. In synthetic data a misaligned image is a form of label noise whose rate depends on how well the generator knows the class. We study how filtering and coverage selection interact when the pool itself is collapsed.

Evaluating generative models. FID [14] and KID [3] measure a distance between distributions and therefore mix fidelity with diversity. Inception features are also biased toward ImageNet classes [19]. Precision/recall [18] and density/coverage [24] separate the two. Stein et al. [37] recommend DINOv2 features [26] over Inception. The Vendi score [8] measures diversity without a reference set. We use these metrics as candidate explanatory variables and test which ones predict training utility under intervention.

3. Setup, measurements and hypotheses

Notation. A task has K classes, a real training set D_r, and a real test set D_{te} that is never used for anything except final evaluation. A generator G with prompt regime π produces a pool $P_{G,\pi}$ of mN images per class (m=3). A training set $S \subset P$ holds exactly N images per class. The test accuracy of a classifier trained on S is $\text{Acc}(S)$. We fix N to the per-class size of D_r so that synthetic and real sets have equal size.

We carve a small alignment split $A \subset D_r$ of k=5 images per class. It is used only to score label alignment and as the training set of the matched real 5-shot baseline. Any method that uses A is therefore compared against a classifier that is given the same real images.

3.1. Data, generators and prompts

Datasets. CUB-200-2011 [42] (200 bird species, about 30 training images per class) is fine-grained: classes are distinguished by local cues such as plumage patterns, and they are rarer in web captions than ImageNet categories. In this version we use 20 classes at evenly spaced class indices (no hand-picking), with N=24 real training images per class after carving A and 585 real test images in total (one test image is 0.17 points). FGVC-Aircraft [22] and the exploratory HAM10000 domain [41] belong to the full design and were not run.

Generators. The full design uses four open models spanning three generations: SD1.5 [29], SDXL [27], SD3.5 [6, 36] and FLUX.1-dev [4]. SD3.5 and FLUX.1-dev do not fit on the free 15 GB T4 GPUs we had, so this version runs SD1.5, SDXL, and SD-Turbo, an adversarially distilled model [31] used as a cheap third generator. SD-Turbo is not a "next version" of SD1.5. We use 25 sampling steps and classifier-free guidance [15] of 2.0 for SD1.5 and SDXL, following the low-guidance setting known to favour diversity [1, 30]; SD-Turbo uses 4 steps and no guidance, as it is distilled. SD1.5 and SD-Turbo are generated at 512^2. SDXL is generated at 768^2 rather than its native 1024^2, which was necessary to fit memory and the session time limit. Resolution, steps and guidance are therefore confounded with the generator, and we report that rather than hide it. All images are resized to 224^2 before training.

Prompt regimes. P1 uses the class name with a domain hint ("a photo of a {class}, a type of bird"). P2 uses LLM-diversified templates that vary pose, background, lighting, season and viewpoint, with the class name always present; the templates are written once per domain without access to real images. P3 (detailed captions of real images from a vision-language model) is an oracle regime that leaks information about the real distribution [1]; it was not run in this version. P1 and P2 are run for all three generators. Each pool holds mN=72 images per class (1,440 images), and equal-size training sets use 480 images.

3.2. Measured properties

All metrics are computed per class and averaged, at equal N, because several of them (notably Vendi) depend on sample size. The primary embedding is DINOv2 ViT-B/14 [26], which is also the backbone of the main learner. (Recomputing all metrics in CLIP ViT-L/14 [28] space as a robustness check is part of the design but was not run here.)

Diversity (reference-free). The Vendi score [8]: the exponential of the entropy of the eigenvalues of $\frac{1}{N}K$, with K the cosine-similarity kernel of the N embeddings. It is the effective number of distinct samples, and it does not ask whether those samples resemble real data.

Coverage (reference-based). The fraction of real training images whose k-NN ball (k=5) contains at least one synthetic image [24], and improved recall [18] (k=3, given only 24 images per class). These ask whether the synthetic set reaches the real distribution. The distinction from Vendi is central to our analysis. A set can raise Vendi by spreading into regions real data never occupies, for example painterly styles, without raising coverage at all.

Label alignment. Two independent scorers, both outputting $a(x, y) \in [0, 1]$ for image x prompted with class y. A_{real} is the softmax probability of y under a nearest-class-mean classifier built from the alignment split A in CLIP image space. A_{text} is CLIP zero-shot probability over the K class names and uses no real images at all. Both are computed in CLIP space, never in the DINOv2 space of the learner, to avoid scoring images with the same features that are later trained on.

Fidelity (per sample). Improved precision [18] and density [24]: how many synthetic samples land on the real manifold. We also report FD in DINOv2 space (FD_{DINO} [37]). Because FD-type metrics mix fidelity and diversity, we treat them as proxies to be tested, not as one of the factors.

3.3. Learners

Main: frozen DINOv2 linear probe. Multinomial logistic regression on frozen, ℓ_2-normalised DINOv2 ViT-B/14 [CLS] features [17]. Weight decay is selected on a held-out synthetic validation split. Selecting on real validation data would leak real information into a nominally synthetic-only pipeline. The probe measures images as supervision for a head, not as pretraining data, and is fast enough to train thousands of times, as the interventional designs require.

Control: from-scratch ResNet. A ResNet-18 [12] trained from random initialisation is part of the design, to check whether it ranks training sets the same way the probe does. It is implemented but was not run in this version, so our claims are confined to the supervision setting.

Baselines and confound controls. Real-only training at $k \in \{5, 10, \text{all}\}$ images per class. Autoencoder ceiling: we pass D_r through a generator's VAE (encode then decode, no diffusion) and train on the reconstructions. This bounds how much of the gap is due to latent-space artifacts alone [1]. We ran it for SD1.5 and SD-Turbo, not for SDXL (full-resolution decoding did not fit in memory). Contamination: generators and DINOv2 may have seen these benchmarks' images; we cannot rule this out, and it would inflate synthetic and probe accuracy alike, biasing toward synthetic data.

3.4. Hypotheses

We fixed these hypotheses before running the interventional experiments.

H1. Within a fixed pool, coverage and label alignment explain more variance in real-test accuracy than per-sample fidelity, and reference-free diversity (Vendi) explains less than coverage.

H2. Across generators, newer models score higher on fidelity and lower on coverage under P1, so FID and precision mis-rank generators as data sources.

H3. The gap is larger for classes the generator knows poorly. We test this per class by regressing the class-level gap on class familiarity, the mean A_{text} of the class under P1.

H4. Alignment filtering followed by coverage selection (DAS) closes a meaningful share of the gap. We commit to reporting the share however small, and to comparing against training on the full oversampled pool.

4. From correlation to intervention

Comparing generators confounds every property of the data with every property of the model. We instead fix (G, π), and with it the autoencoder, resolution, sampler and training corpus, and vary only which N images per class are kept from the pool $P_{G,\pi}$. The manipulated variable is then the composition of the training set, and its effect on Acc is identified up to properties of the selected images that we did not measure (Sec. 7). All selection steps use CLIP embeddings. All diversity, coverage and fidelity measurements use DINOv2 embeddings. Selection therefore cannot trivially maximise the quantity it is scored on.

Diversity arm. Fix an alignment threshold τ (the pool's 40th percentile of A_{real}) and restrict to images above it. From the surviving set, choose N per class in one of three ways. Clustered takes the N nearest neighbours of a random seed image, giving low diversity. Random gives the pool's natural diversity. k-center uses greedy farthest-point selection [10], giving high diversity. Mean alignment is held fixed by construction, up to within-threshold variation. k-center is known to favour outliers, which may have lower fidelity, so we measure precision in every arm.

Alignment arm. Fix the selection rule to random and vary the alignment quantile from which images are drawn: bottom, middle or top third of A_{real}. High-alignment images tend to be prototypical and therefore less diverse, so this arm alone does not hold diversity fixed. We correct this by matching: within each tercile we draw 200 random candidate subsets and keep the one whose Vendi score is closest to the pool median.

2×2 factorial. Crossing low/high diversity with low/high alignment, constructed as above, gives four training sets per (G, π). With three selection seeds and three training seeds each, the design estimates both main effects and their interaction. An interaction is plausible a priori: diversity may help only when images are correctly labelled, since spreading out misaligned images adds varied label noise.

Balanced random-subset design and attribution. Factorial cells test two factors at two levels. To attribute

variance across all four candidate factors, we additionally draw R=150 subsets per (G, π) (the full design uses 500). Each is formed by mixing random, k-center, clustered and quantile-restricted draws in random proportions. This produces broad variation in diversity D, coverage C, alignment A and fidelity F (we report their correlation structure). We fit

$$\mathrm{Acc}(S) = \beta_D \tilde{D} + \beta_C \tilde{C} + \beta_A \tilde{A} + \beta_F \tilde{F} + \gamma_{G,\pi} + \varepsilon, \quad (1)$$

with standardised regressors and a fixed effect γ for each generator–prompt cell. Variance is therefore explained only within pools. We report the Shapley (LMG) share of R^2 for each factor [11, 21]: its average marginal contribution over all orderings of regressors. Unlike standardised coefficients, these shares remain interpretable when regressors are correlated. We also fit the model between cells, without fixed effects, over the generator–prompt configurations; it has very few points and no control of confounds, so it is descriptive.

5. DAS: Diversity-matched, Alignment-filtered Sampling

DAS turns the decomposition into a recipe that needs no gradient step on the generator. For each class y:

1. Oversample. Generate mN images (m=3) under P2.
2. Filter. Discard images with $a(x, y) < \tau$. Here τ is a pool quantile chosen on the synthetic validation split, never on real test data (we use the 40th percentile). If fewer than N images survive, keep the top-N by alignment.
3. Select. From the survivors, choose N images by greedy k-center in CLIP space [10, 32]. The first centre is the survivor with the highest alignment, so that the most reliable image anchors the set.

DAS-real uses A_{real} and therefore the 5-shot alignment split. DAS-text uses A_{text} and no real image at any stage. Selection costs $O(mN^2)$ distance evaluations per class, which is negligible next to generation.

What DAS must beat. Random-N; All-mN, the entire pool, with three times the images at the same generation cost, which separates the value of selecting from the value of having more; Filter-only and k-center-only; Real 5-shot, the same real images DAS-real sees, used directly; and the hybrid Real 5-shot + DAS. We summarise each method by the fraction of gap closed,

$$\Delta = \frac{\mathrm{Acc}(\text{method}) - \mathrm{Acc}(\text{Random-}N)}{\mathrm{Acc}(\text{Real-}N) - \mathrm{Acc}(\text{Random-}N)}, \quad (2)$$

undefined when the denominator is near zero, in which case we report raw accuracies only. Δ>1 would mean the method surpasses real data of equal size.

6. Results

All results are for 20 CUB classes, one generation seed per pool, and a 585-image test set; one test image is 0.17 points. Intervals reflect selection and training randomness, not generation randomness.

6.1. Cross-generator picture

Figure 1 and Tab. 1 report the uncontrolled comparison that motivates the paper. It tests, at small scale and on fine-grained data, whether the experiment of [1] replicates.

The regression does not replicate here. Under P1, accuracy is 90.9% (SD1.5), 96.2% (SDXL) and 91.5% (SD-Turbo), ordered by release date; Kendall's τ over release order is +0.33 (P2: +0.33), so there is no monotone decline. The newest large model, SDXL, is the best teacher, 96.2% against 98.6% for real data. SD-Turbo is no better than SD1.5 under P1 (91.5% vs. 90.9%, about three test images) but is better under P2 (93.8% vs. 90.6%). We read this as a finding about domain dependence and scale: with three generators we cannot say the regression is absent in general.

Precision and coverage do not track accuracy (H2). Precision falls from SD1.5 (0.62) to SDXL (0.27) to SD-Turbo (0.03), and coverage falls the same way (0.70, 0.36, 0.03), while SDXL has the highest accuracy. Higher fidelity for newer models, as H2 predicted, is therefore not observed; coverage does fall for newer models, but it does not drive accuracy. The ranking by $\mathrm{FD}_{\mathrm{DINO}}$ (SDXL 0.74, SD-Turbo 0.81, SD1.5 0.93; lower is better) agrees with the accuracy ranking, whereas precision ranks SD1.5, the worst teacher, first. This is the one place the "looks better, teaches worse" pattern appears, and it rests on a measure computed from only 24 images per class (recall is near zero, 0.013–0.040, so precision/recall values are noisy).

Prompts and the autoencoder ceiling. P2 changes accuracy by less than 0.4 points for SD1.5 and SDXL and raises SD-Turbo from 91.5% to 93.8%; P3 was not run. Re-rendering real images through the autoencoder gives 98.3% (SD1.5) and 98.5% (SD-Turbo), against 98.6% for the originals, so autoencoder artifacts explain at most 0.3 points of the gap; the rest is a property of what the generators draw.

6.2. Interventional decomposition

Factorial (Fig. 2, Tab. 2). Raising label alignment helps a lot for the weakest generator (+12.2 points for SD1.5), less for SD-Turbo (+3.9) and little for SDXL

Training data	Prompt	Acc ↑	Vendi ↑	Cov. ↑	Prec. ↑	Recall ↑	FD_{DINO} ↓	A_{real} ↑
Real, 5/class	–	97.9	–	–	–	–	–	–
Real, 10/class	–	97.6	–	–	–	–	–	–
Real, all (N=24)	–	98.6	–	–	–	–	–	–
SD1.5	P1	90.9	11.2	0.70	0.62	0.013	0.93	0.068
SD1.5	P2	90.6	14.3	0.68	0.79	0.008	1.10	0.064
SD-Turbo	P1	91.5	4.6	0.03	0.03	0.015	0.81	0.073
SD-Turbo	P2	93.8	8.5	0.25	0.18	0.021	0.93	0.068
SDXL (768^2)	P1	96.2	6.5	0.36	0.27	0.040	0.74	0.074
SDXL (768^2)	P2	95.9	9.0	0.58	0.47	0.042	0.83	0.070
VAE ceiling (SD1.5)	–	98.3	5.2	1.00	0.98	1.00	0.11	–
VAE ceiling (SD-Turbo)	–	98.5	5.2	1.00	0.98	1.00	0.11	–

Table 1. Main results (CUB-200-2011, 20 classes). Real-test accuracy (%) of a frozen DINOv2 linear probe trained on 480 random images (24 per class), with set-level measures in DINOv2 space (alignment in CLIP space, Sec. 3.2). One generation seed; one test image is 0.17 points. VAE ceiling: real images re-rendered through the generator's autoencoder (not run for SDXL). Aircraft, SD3.5, FLUX and P3 rows of the full design were not run.

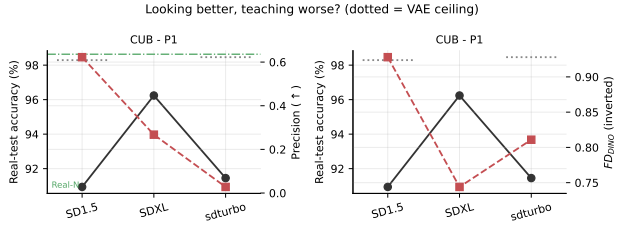


Figure 1. Looking better, teaching worse? Accuracy (black) vs. precision (left) and FD_{DINO} (right, inverted), P1, in release order. Dotted: autoencoder ceiling; green: Real-N.

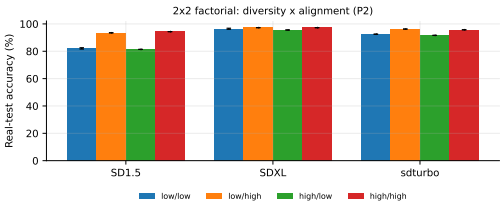


Figure 2. Which property matters? 2×2 factorial (diversity × alignment), P2. Cells use extreme quantile subsets, so they are not comparable to Tab. 1.

Generator	Diversity	Alignment	Interaction
SD1.5	+0.1[-0.1, +0.3]	+12.2[+12.1, +12.5]	+1.6[+1.0, +1.9]
SD-Turbo	-0.7[-0.7, -0.7]	+3.9[+3.9, +3.9]	+0.3[+0.3, +0.3]
SDXL	-0.5[-0.7, -0.3]	+1.3[+1.0, +1.4]	+0.9[+0.7, +1.4]

Table 2. 2×2 factorial (P2), effects in accuracy points with 95% intervals over selection and training seeds (not over generation seeds).

(+1.3). Raising diversity does nothing or slightly hurts (+0.1, -0.7, -0.5). The interaction is positive for all three (+1.6, +0.3, +0.9), which is the direction the label-noise argument of Sec. 4 predicts (diversity helps, or hurts less, when images are correctly labelled), but its size is below one point for two of the three generators, so we do not claim more. Plausibly, weaker generators more often draw the wrong or an unrecognisable bird, so filtering helps most there (untested).

Within-pool decomposition (H1). Over 150 random subsets per generator, the regression explains only 3.6% of the variance in accuracy. The Shapley shares are D 0.5%, C 1.6%, A 1.0% and F 0.5%. Numerically $C+A > F$ and $C > D$, as H1 predicts, but the totals are tiny and we computed no confidence intervals, so we neither confirm nor refute H1. The factors are also strongly collinear: Vendi correlates 0.91 with coverage and 0.92 with precision, and variance inflation factors range from 36 to 147 (values above 10 are usually taken as serious), which limits what any decomposition can claim. The between-generator version has only three points for four predictors and is not identified, so the paper's central contrast, cross-generator correlation versus within-pool attribution, cannot be drawn at this scale. Recomputation in CLIP space and with A_{text} in place of A_{real} was not run.

Class familiarity (H3). Regressing the per-class gap on familiarity gives negative slopes for all three generators (SD1.5 -0.29 [-0.52, -0.05], SD-Turbo -0.95 [-1.32, 0.23], SDXL -0.18 [-0.24, 0.25]; 95% bootstrap intervals), i.e. a larger gap for classes the generator

Method	Real imgs	SD1.5 Acc	SD1.5 Δ	SD-Turbo Acc	SD-Turbo Δ	SDXL Acc	SDXL Δ
Random-N	0	90.6	0.00	93.8	0.00	95.9	0.00
All-mN (3× data)	0	90.4	-0.02	95.4	0.32	96.2	0.12
k-center only	0	88.5	-0.26	92.5	-0.29	96.6	0.25
Filter only (A_{text})	0	91.6	0.13	96.2	0.50	97.3	0.50
DAS-text	0	94.0	0.43	95.0	0.25	97.1	0.44
Filter only (A_{real})	5	90.6	0.00	95.2	0.29	97.3	0.50
DAS-real	5	93.0	0.30	95.9	0.43	97.1	0.44
Real 5-shot + DAS-real	5	97.9	0.91	98.5	0.96	97.6	0.62
Real 5-shot	5			97.8			
Real-N	all			98.6			

Table 3. DAS versus baselines (CUB, 20 classes, P2). Δ: fraction of the gap closed (Eq. 2). "Real imgs": real images per class used anywhere in the pipeline. One test image is 0.17 points.

knows poorly. The OLS fits are strong for SD-Turbo (R^2=0.58, p=0.0001) and SDXL (R^2=0.49, p=0.0006) and weak for SD1.5 (R^2=0.16, p=0.0854), but the bootstrap intervals for SD-Turbo and SDXL include zero while SD1.5's does not, because the per-class gaps are zero-inflated. The two tests disagree, so H3 is only weakly supported. The least familiar class is the same for all three generators, Chuck-will's-widow (familiarity 0.11, 0.25, 0.20; gaps of 23.1%, 100.0% and 19.2%); for SD-Turbo the probe classifies none of its test images correctly. We did not investigate why.

6.3. From-scratch control and DAS

From-scratch control. Not run in this version, so conclusions are restricted to the supervision setting (a head on a real-pretrained backbone); we make no claim that the ranking carries over to pretraining.

DAS against the baselines (Tab. 3). DAS-real improves over random selection by +2.4 (SD1.5), +2.1 (SD-Turbo) and +1.2 points (SDXL), and DAS-text by +3.4, +1.2 and +1.2. In terms of Δ, DAS-real closes 0.30, 0.43 and 0.44 of the gap and DAS-text 0.43, 0.25 and 0.44. DAS beats training on all $3N$ images in five of six comparisons, so the gain is not just from having more images (SD-Turbo with DAS-text, 95.0%, is below All-mN, 95.4%). But filtering alone is about as good: it equals or beats DAS in three of six cases (SD-Turbo with A_{text}, SDXL with both scorers), so we cannot credit DAS's diversity step with an improvement. k-center alone is below random for SD1.5 and SD-Turbo. Real 5-shot (97.8%) still beats every synthetic-only set, so five real images are worth more than a curated synthetic set. Adding DAS-selected images to them gives 97.9%, 98.5% and 97.6%, within about 0.7 points of 5-shot alone, so the hybrid is not clearly useful at this scale.

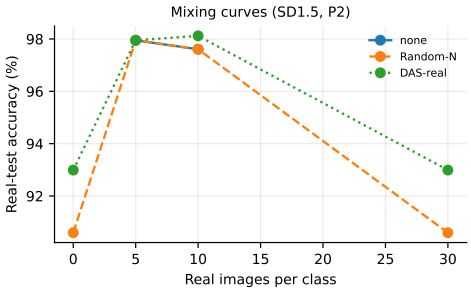


Figure 3. Does synthetic data still help once real data is available? Real images per class ∈ {0, 5, 10, all} plus random or DAS-real synthetic images. Real-only is near ceiling.

Per-generator spread. DAS helps the weaker generators more (+2.4 for SD1.5, +2.1 for SD-Turbo, +1.2 for SDXL for DAS-real), the opposite of what we would expect if newer generators' deficit were coverage rather than alignment. This fits the factorial: the fixable deficit is mostly alignment.

Ablations. Moving the alignment threshold over the 20th, 40th and 60th percentile changes DAS accuracy by about one point at most (SD1.5 93.0–93.3%, SD-Turbo 95.0–96.1%, SDXL 96.4–97.4%), and the first-centre rule changes little (m and selection-embedding ablations not run).

Mixing with real data (Fig. 3). With 5 or 10 real images per class, adding synthetic images changes accuracy by between -0.5 and +0.9 points, with no consistent direction. Real-only accuracy is already about 98%, so we cannot identify a real-data budget at which synthetic data stops helping, and cannot say whether DAS moves it.

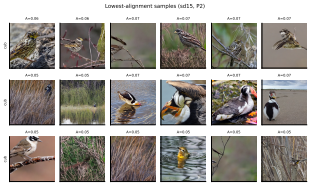


Figure 4. What the filter removes. Six lowest-A_{real} SD1.5 (P2) images in three random classes (chosen by rule). Many show clutter and a barely visible bird.

7. Discussion and limitations

What the interventions do and do not identify. Selecting from a fixed pool removes confounds that cross-generator comparisons cannot: architecture, autoencoder, training data and sampler. It does not make the four measured factors exhaustive. Any unmeasured property that co-varies with our selection rules is absorbed into the factor it travels with. Examples are texture statistics, which the predecessor found degraded [1], or background clutter. The decomposition says which measured property, when manipulated, moves accuracy; it is not a complete causal account of why a pool looks the way it does. The autoencoder ceiling bounds one unmeasured cause; others remain.

Scope of this version (what was not run). (i) Only 20 of 200 CUB classes, evenly spaced; they are easy (real data reaches 98.6%), which compresses differences. (ii) Three generators, one generation seed per pool, 585 test images: one image is 0.17 points, so many differences in Tab. 3 are one to six images. (iii) SDXL at 768^2; generators differ in steps and guidance as well as quality, so they are confounded. SD3.5 and FLUX, which the title question is really about, were not run. (iv) Not run: FGVC-Aircraft, HAM10000, P3, extra generation seeds, the from-scratch control, the CLIP-space and A_{text} reruns, the m and embedding ablations and SDXL's autoencoder ceiling; 150 instead of 500 subsets were drawn, and the Shapley shares have no confidence intervals. (v) SD-Turbo's P1 precision and coverage (0.03, 0.03) are unusually low and should be checked before being relied on.

Scope of the learner and data. The probe measures synthetic images as supervision for a head on a strong real-pretrained backbone, not as pretraining data; we confine our claims to that setting. We cover one fine-grained domain, three open generators and classification only. Closed generators, detection and segmentation, and generators fine-tuned on in-domain data [16] are out of scope; DAS should compose with the latter, but we have not shown that. DAS-real needs five real images per class. DAS-text needs none, but its scorer inherits CLIP's weaknesses on fine-grained classes and may discard correct images on domains CLIP knows poorly. Every set-level metric also depends on an embedding: we separate the selection embedding (CLIP) from the measurement embedding (DINOv2) but did not recompute everything in the other space, and per-class precision and recall use few images and are noisy.

Implications. Within the scope above: (i) for a weak generator, check label alignment before worrying about diversity; a free CLIP zero-shot filter gave the largest gain at no generation cost beyond oversampling. (ii) Do not rank generators by precision alone; in this pilot FD_{DINO} tracked accuracy and precision did not. (iii) When five real images per class exist, they beat curated synthetic sets, so use them directly (and for alignment). (iv) Generator developers who want their models used as data sources should report per-class label alignment on fine-grained classes, not only prompt following.

Data, licences and societal impact. We use only an existing, published dataset (CUB-200-2011) under its research-use terms, collect no new human-subject data, and use generators under their licences for non-commercial research. The main foreseeable risk is over-confidence: a selection recipe that narrows the synthetic-to-real gap on benchmarks could encourage substituting synthetic for real data in high-stakes domains such as medical imaging, where generator failures are hardest to see. Our results, including where DAS does not help, argue for validating on real data in exactly those settings. Code and selection indices will be released.

LLM usage statement. [Authors to confirm.] An LLM assistant (Claude, Anthropic) drafted the structure and text of all sections from the authors' research plan, compiled the bibliography, wrote and ran the experiment and analysis code, and drafted the results text from stored outputs. [Authors: verify every citation, rewrite the text, and take responsibility for all claims.] P2 templates: [authors: name/version of the LLM used]. Numbers in tables and figures are written by the code from stored outputs; none were edited or selected by hand.

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